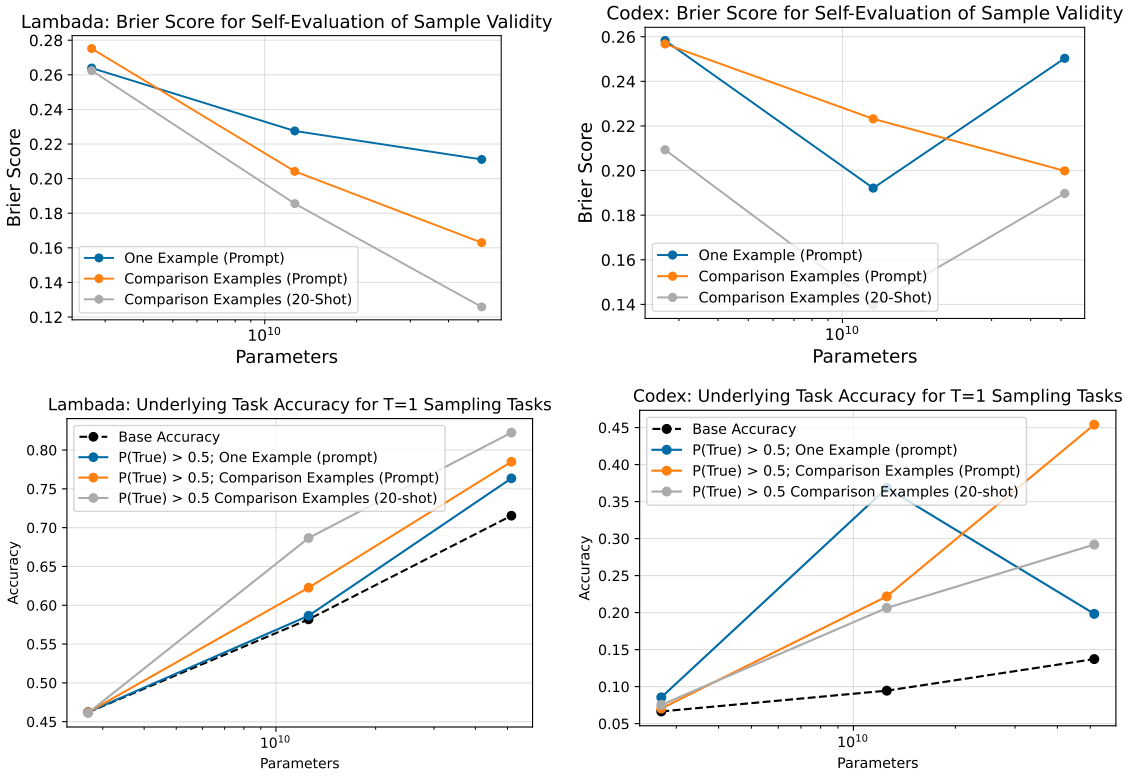


Figure 11 Here we show results only for Lambada and Codex, as these are fairly representative of short-answer and long-answer behavior; for full results see Figures 28, 29, 30, and 31 in the appendix. **Top**: Here we show the Brier scores for model self-evaluation with three methods: basic self-evaluation with a prompt, and self-evaluation with comparison samples, either with a fixed prompt or 20-shot. Note that the Brier score combines accuracy of the True/False determination with calibration, and 20-shot evaluation with comparison samples performs best in every case. Brier scores do not decrease with model size on evaluations like Codex because small model samples are almost always invalid, so that it's relatively trivial to achieve a small Brier score. **Bottom**: We show the base accuracy of our models on various sampling tasks, and then the accuracy among the responses where via self-evaluation we have P(True) > 0.5. For P(True) we evaluate with a single example and a prompt, and then both 20-shot and with a prompt with five comparison examples. Few-shot evaluation is important for obtaining good calibration.

models benefit less from this approach on tasks requiring long-form answers (Codex and GMS8k). As noted in the last section, calibration of P(True) is relatively poor zero-shot, but it improves few-shot. In Figure 32 in the appendix we show the full calibration curves for 20-shot True/False self-evaluation.

A pragmatic comparison of self-evaluation techniques can be seen on the bottom of Figure 11. There we directly compare the overall accuracy of our models at the task, to the accuracies for the subset of responses where the models chose P(True) > 0.5. We see that these conditional accuracies are substantially higher than the overall accuracy, with the separation between base and conditional accuracies growing with model size. This suggests that as capabilities improve and samples become more sophisticated, models seem to demonstrate *relative* improvement at self-evaluation, compared to their generative ability. This accords with the intuitive sense that verification is often easier than generation.

Overall, if given a few examples from a given distribution, models can generate samples and then self-evaluate them to productively differentiate correct and incorrect samples, with reasonably calibrated confidence.

5 Training Models to Predict Whether They Can Answer Questions Correctly

In this section, we will train models to predict whether they know the answer to any given free-form question, denoting the probability they assign as 'P(IK)' (for Probability that I Know the answer). This is fundamentally a question about the model itself, as different models will know the answers to different questions.

We considered two approaches:

- **Value Head**: We train P(IK) as the logit from an additional value 'head' added to the model (independent of the logits for language modeling). An advantage of this approach is that we can easily probe P(IK) at general token positions.
- **Natural Language**: We train P(IK) by asking the model to literally address "With what confidence could you answer this question?", and output an answer like 0%, 10%, 20%, $\cdots$ 100%.

We had hoped to observe large benefits from few-shot evaluation out-of-distribution with the natural language approach. In early experiments we did not observe major gains, and so we will use the value head approach in what follows. But we believe it would be worth returning to the natural language approach in the future.

For each question, we generated 30 answer samples at $T = 1$. For a given question Q, if 20 of the model's sampled answers were correct, and 10 were incorrect, our training set contained 20 copies of the (Q, IK) datapoint and 10 copies of the (Q, IDK) datapoint. This was a convenience to allow us to easily approximate[5] a soft label for the ground-truth P(IK) by using many hard labels. We trained with a cross-entropy loss on these labels.

Figure 3 gives some examples of P(IK) scores from a 52 billion parameter model on a few example questions where the model obviously should or should not know the answers. Note that the value head is technically present at every token position. However, during training, we only backpropagate the loss through the head at the last token position of the input sequence. At test time, we also read off the P(IK) score for any given sequence as the output from our head at the final token position.

5.1 Evaluating P(IK) Training and Model Size Trends

Because we're adding a new untrained head, language models do not perform well zero or few-shot at predicting P(IK), so we need to finetune them. Since TriviaQA has a large training set, we explore generalization by finetuning P(IK) only on trivia questions. In order to obtain ground-truth P(IK) scores that we use for training, we sample 30 answers (at temperature $= 1$) from each TriviaQA question with a 10-shot prompt constructed from other random TriviaQA questions and answers. We use a 10-shot prompt simply to ensure that the models almost always output answers in the correct format, which is important because correctness on TriviaQA questions is judged based on a string comparison.

Our dataset for training and evaluating the classifier then contains datapoints of the form (Few-Shot Prompt + Question, Ground Truth Label). During P(IK) training, we finetune the entire model along with the value head. In Figure 12, we then evaluate this classifier on a held-out set of TriviaQA test questions, and see that the model is able to separate the questions it got correct and incorrect quite well. In particular, P(IK) is very well calibrated on TriviaQA. As a note, in a later section we train P(IK) on Lambada, Arithmetic, and Python Function Synthesis problems as well. We used a 10-shot prompt for both Lambada and Arithmetic, while Python Function Synthesis was done 0-shot.

5.2 Out of Distribution Generalization of P(IK)

Next, we study the generalization of P(IK) when training only on TriviaQA and then evaluating on Lambada, Arithmetic, GSM8k, Codex HumanEval, and a set of 'naturally occurring' python function synthesis tasks scraped from GitHub (we added this test set because the Codex evaluation is not very large). We are interested in how generalization scales across model sizes, and how performance compares to the case where we do train P(IK) on these distributions.

We treat GSM8k slightly differently, since it was harder than other tasks. As for TriviaQA, we generated 30 samples @ $T = 1$ per question from GSM8k using a 10-shot prompt of examples to ensure proper formatting.

[5] In some cases P(IK) could be somewhat misleading – for instance, Owain Evans pointed out the nice example "Name a composite integer in the range [1,100]?" where by chance the model may achieve an apparent P(IK) $= 0.75$ simply by randomly sampling integers in [1,100].

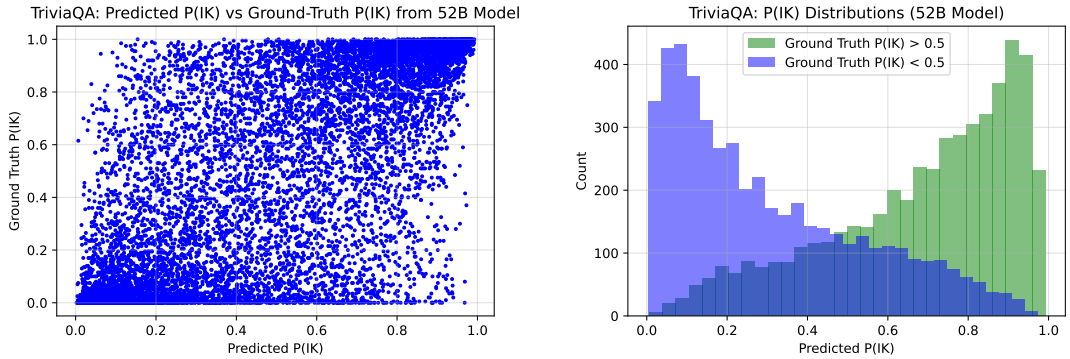


Figure 12 Testing a 52B classifier on a held-out set of TriviaQA questions. We see that the classifier predicts lower values of P(IK) for the questions it gets incorrect, and higher values of P(IK) for the questions it gets correct. We set the ground truth P(IK) as the fraction of samples at $T = 1$ that the model gets correct.

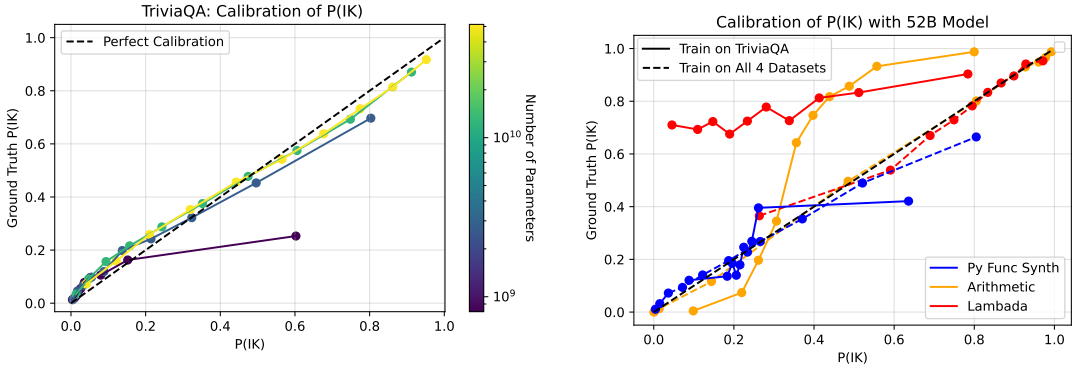


Figure 13 Left: Full calibration plot of P(IK) classifiers on TriviaQA over a range of model sizes. We see that the smallest models have higher calibration error than the biggest models. The larger classifiers are very well calibrated in-distribution. Right: We show calibration curves for P(IK) on three other sampling-based datasets, both in-distribution and out-of-distribution (trained only on TriviaQA). We see that OOD calibration of P(IK) is often quite poor, and for the most part models are underconfident.

However, the 10-shot prompt for GSM8k included reasoning, as well as the final answer. This meant that each of the 30 samples included model-generated reasoning. Similarly to other tasks, we calculate a ground-truth P(IK) for each question as just the fraction of $T = 1$ samples that are correct. However, since there aren't many problems with a ground truth $P(IK) > 0.5$, we sometimes binarize (i.e. split the distribution) using a threshold of 0.25, instead of 0.5. We only evaluate the largest model (52B) on GSM8k due to its difficulty.

Figure 14 gives an overview of generalization performance for P(IK) classifiers that are only trained on TriviaQA. Specifically, we see that generalization gets better as model size increases. Figures 39, 40, and 41 show details of generalization to Mixed-Arithmetic, Python Function Synthesis, and Lambada. We see that there is a general trend where the AUROC of P(IK) increases with model size, and calibration gets better with model size. However, when testing on Lambada, calibration was terrible, because the model produces uniformly low P(IK) scores. However, training on all 4 tasks resolves this issue, as shown on the right side of Figure 41.

Table 1 gives an overview comparing generalization to in-distribution performance of P(IK) scores. Figure 16 gives a more detailed view of how the distributions of P(IK) changes depending on training data on the 52B model. We see that training on specific P(IK) distributions helps performance, indicating that there is a significant generalization gap to fill.

[6]See section XYZ for details on the setup for GSM8k. In this table, we binarized the ground-truth P(IK) with a threshold of 0.5, like all other evals. Also, note that the Brier score for GSM8k tasks are somewhat misleading, since it is overwhelmingly dominated by questions the model gets incorrect and has low P(IK) for.